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ОСОБЕННОСТИ ЗАИМСТВОВАНИЯ В АРАБСКОМ ЯЗЫКЕ В РАЗНЫЕ ИСТОРИЧЕСКИЕ ПЕРИОДЫ ЕГО РАЗВИТИЯ

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Аннотация. Статья посвящена истории лексического заимствования в арабский язык, которая подразделяется автором на пять периодов. К ним относятся следующие периоды: доисламский, ранне-исламский, Омеййдо-Аббасидский (VII-XIII вв.), Османский (XV-XVII вв.), Арабский Ренессанс и Европейский колониализм, технологический (с 1970-х по настоящее время). В каждом из перечисленных эпох происходят значительные изменения, в том числе в области заимствования.

В статье приводится множество примеров заимствования с указанием его источников: другие семитские языки, турецкий язык, а также ряд индоевропейских языков, включая персидский язык и западноевропейские языки. Автор исследует различные стратегии ассимиляции новых слов в систему принимающего языка, включая калькирование и различные фонологические и морфологические стратегии адаптации. Автор также уделяет внимание факту заимствования иностранных слов лингвистами, писателями и другими представителями интеллектуального труда, которые в поисках альтернативы заимствованию выбирали подчас пути, приводившие к нарушению фонологических и морфологических норм арабского языка. Рассматривая историю заимствования, автор также касается вопроса целостности арабского языка как неотъемлемой части арабской национальной самоидентификации. Автор делает попытку прогнозировать пути развития процесса заимствования в арабском языке. Статья представляет интерес с точки зрения широкого охвата исторического развития языка в части заимствования, а также презентации богатого материала, посвященного изучаемой теме. Работа будет полезной в исследовательской и преподавательской деятельности ученых, преподавателей, историков, арабистов.

Ключевые слова: историческая лингвистика, история арабского языка, заимствования, арабская лексика, кальки, семантическое изменение

Summary. The article discusses the history of lexical borrowings into Arabic. It breaks down the history of this process into five basic periods: pre-Islamic and early Islamic times, Omayyads - Abbasids (seventh-thirteenth centuries), the Ottoman Yoke (fifteenth-eighteenth centuries), the Arabic Renaissance and European Colonialism (nineteen-the middle of the twentieth centuries), and the technological era (1970s-present). During each period radical changes in Arabic lexicon, including changings in borrowings into the Arabic language, took place.

The author gives numerous examples and considers a variety of donor languages (ranging from other Semitic languages and Turkish to a number of Indo-European languages, including Persian

and later various Western European languages). This work studies different strategies for assimilating new words (including loan translations (*caiques*) and various phonological and morphological adaptations). The author also shows that many loanwords

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have been borrowed by linguists, writers and other intellectuals, who were looking for alternative to borrowing ways that have not always met the phonological and morphological norms of the Arabic language. While studying the history of borrowings into Arabic, the author touches up the question about the wholeness of the Arabic language as a part of Arabic nationalism. She also attempts to analyze the character of future borrowings into Arabic. The significance of this article is in covering all the history of borrowings into Arabic and summing up numerous works devoted to specific aspects of the given topic. It can be used for academic research and teaching by linguists, historians and specialists in the Arabic studies.

Keywords: historical linguistics, history of Arabic, loanwords, Arabic lexicon, loan translation, *caiques*, semantic shift.

Introduction

Arabic has never been “in recorded history a ‘pure’ or even completely homogeneous language in the normal senses of this word” (Holes 310). The expansion of new territories in the distant past, the opening of a window to Europe in the last two centuries, and world globalization in the present, together with new contacts, education and numerous translations, led to an enriching of its vocabulary.

Despite many works devoted to the specific lexical groups of borrowings, donor languages, lexical layers, vocabulary modernization, and specific periods of adaption, little attention has been paid to summing up new borrowings into Arabic across the entire history of the Arab people with the exception of several book chapters (‘Ali, Belkin, Hafiz, Versteegh, to mention a few).

The current paper attempts to fill this blind spot through quantitative and qualitative analytical methods. We divide the entire history of the Arabs into several periods based on radical shifts in the political, social and cultural spheres, which led to changes in the character of borrowings from other languages.

The scope of our study lets us concentrate only on Modern Standard Arabic (MSA). This work also does not study idiomatic expressions.

A Periodization of the History of Loanwords Borrowed into Arabic

We have divided the history of Arabic into five main periods based on global changes in the contacts established by the Arab nation, which led to the changes in borrowings.

The First Period: Pre-Islamic and Early Islamic Times

The Old Arabic language mostly consisted of a blend of languages spoken by ancient Arab tribes, and it was closely related to the old Semitic languages. Its vocabulary, roots and morphemes might have varied, but they had similar verb roots, numerals, pronouns and prepositions. Some of the lexemes fully coincided within this group of languages. Like in other language families, usually this part of the Arabic terminology mostly reflected the main surroundings of peoples belonging to the same or closely related ethnic groups: ‘*ar*’ d’the Earth’, *samā’* ‘the sky’; names for animals, insects and plants, such as *qamh* ‘wheat’, *zayt* ‘olives’, *aqrab* ‘scorpion’, *jamal* ‘a camel’, *khinzīr* ‘a pig’; family members, such as ‘*ab*’ ‘father’, ‘*akh*’ ‘brother’; body parts: *ra’as* ‘head’, *kabd* ‘liver’; *zanb* ‘tail’; household items, such as *dalw* ‘bowl’, *Sahn* ‘plate’. MSA vocabulary mostly consists of

this old layer, which is considered by many linguists to be the really Arabic one and is opposed to foreign borrowings (Belkin 38, 39).

According to Korf, Jefferey, Hafiz, Al-Shīhābī and numerous other researchers, foreign words have penetrated into the Arabic language ever since the very earliest stages of its development. This is not surprising, as the speakers of pre-Islamic Arabic, especially in the area known today as the Hijaz and the territory of the modern Middle East, were in constant contact with their surrounding communities, which spoke numerous languages. These groups included old Semitic, South Arab, African and Persian communities.

It is also important to mention the great number of visitors to the Holy Kaaba in Mecca in pre-Islamic times, who brought certain borrowings into Arabic.

Before now, the specific number of foreign borrowings has not been determined, as researchers differ in their definition of what is a loanword. Shīr in his dictionary of Persian words lists about 2000 terms, but he also includes borrowings from the other languages (Shīr in Belkin 104). Monteil (152 in Belkin 104) claims that about 700 words were borrowed into Arabic from Byzantine Greek and about 350 from Persian. Nakhla-a (287 in Belkin 104) estimates that about 2515 foreign words.

According to our analysis of 318 foreign words in the Holy Quran listed by Jeffery, the share of direct and indirect loanwords taken from fifty-five languages comprises about 2.6% of the total vocabulary of the Holy Quran, not considering their frequency.

The largest group of borrowings came from Hebrew, Persian, and Aramaic. The last one was the lingua franca of the Neo-Assyrian, Neo-Babylonian and Achaemenid Empires, and several other ancient states, and it enriched Arabic with various terms (*kitāb* 'book', *Salla-a* 'prayer', *kibrīt* 'sulfur', *khamr* 'wine', *bāb* 'door', *qatirān* 'pitch') (Fraenkel in Versteegh; Belkin 101, 102; Shahīd 6, 7). We assume that such terms as *talmūd* 'tadmud', *tūra-a* 'Torah', *fiSh* 'Easter' came from Old Hebrew, as they relate to Judaism (Belkin 102).

Persian had been a donor language to Arabic long before Iran was absorbed by the rapidly growing Islamic state in the seventh century. The Middle Persian language penetrated into Arabic directly or indirectly through

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other Semitic languages: *kam* 'how many/much', *bayān* 'speech', *rajas* 'abomination', and *nūr* 'light'.

The role of Syriac, an Aramaic dialect, was no less important than Persian. The Arabs mostly borrowed terms from this language to describe the flora and fauna that they had not encountered before (*ballūt* 'oak', *'ijāš* 'pears', *tīn* 'fig tree', *qutn* 'cotton', *hayawān* 'animal', *dajāj* 'chickens'), agriculture and features of the sedentary lifestyle (*sikkīna-a* 'knife', *qufl* 'lock', *šāqūl* 'plummet'), clothes (*qubbā'a-a* 'headdress', *tikka-a* 'belt, lace'), as well as professions (*fallah* 'peasant', *fakhhār* 'potter', *rubbān* 'captain') (Belkin 101).

The terminology of some African languages penetrated into Arabic mostly through fearless traders, who since time immemorial constantly crossed the territory of the Arabian Peninsula and the future Great Syria (*mā'ida-a* 'dinner table', *sikka-a* 'road' (Belkin) and *khubz* 'bread' (Jeffery)).

Borrowings from languages other than those mentioned above were random and came into Arabic through mediator languages, i.e. *ṣirāt* 'way' (from Latin) and *misk* 'musk' (from Sanskrit) (Belkin 102, 103).

As for the borrowing model, al-Shīhābī (19 in Hafiz 27) states that it was *ta'arīb* 'arabicization'¹, which can be traced back to Pre-Islamic times.

The Second Period: Omayyads - Abbasids (Seventh-Thirteenth Centuries)

During the expansion of the Arab caliphate, the Arabic language served as a boundary language between the Arabs and non-Arabs. The coherent and logical system of Arabic roots and patterns made its speakers believe in their mental superiority, and it became an object of pride. Naturally, the purity of the Arabic language became grounds for serious concern and the one of the motivations behind compiling dictionaries of Arabic.

The massive influx of loanwords into Arabic within a short period overwhelmed the first linguists and provoked their concern. If early post-Hijra-a lexicographers were willing to accept that numerous Arabic vocabulary items without any qualms, by the ninth century Arabic scholars were attempting to find old Bedouin roots in the loanwords (Versteegh 59-61), as they thought that the influx of vocabulary from other cultures would corrupt the language of God in which the Holy Quran was written.

At the same time, the threat to "the purity" of the Arabic language was inevitable: within a very short period, the rapidly growing young Islamic state conquered a vast territory with diverse cultures and languages and tremendously spread the horizons of the knowledge of the Arabs in many areas.

The expansion of territories led to the founding of Islamic cities and the migration and miscegenation of their population. As a result, for a speaker who was raised in an Islamic city far from Bedouin tribes, even certain regular Arabic terminology may have been unclear (Versteegh 59).

Moreover, non-Arab members of the expanded Muslim community viewed Arabic as a Bedouin language that had radically changed through borrowings from other languages and only later became the rich language of a vast cultural heritage (Suleiman 69). In addition to this, most leading scholars, writers, poets and translators were not Arabs. They were bilingual, or spoke the languages of numerous non-Arab ethnic groups and nationalities that had adopted Islam and commonly ignored the Arabic language ideals of "clarity, sobriety and purity" (Stetkevich 96). Their translations and transliterations from and into Arabic differed and were not always suitable, clear, and correct.

Because of this situation, numerous borrowed vocabulary words from different languages together with arabicized non-Arabic words that had penetrated into Arabic and at times replaced the corresponding original terms. Persian, which seemed "more pleasant to ears and easily adaptable" (al-Maghribī 24), occupied the leading place between donor languages. The works of 'Ibn al-Muqaffa', a Persian thinker, writer and translator, serve as a good illustration of this process (Stetkevich 96).

Like in the previous period, an intensive semantic shift in the vocabulary that was borrowed at that time took place: *dustūr* started to mean 'constitution', and *divān* 'collection of poems', but originally these two words meant 'high official' and 'register', respectively. The same situation applied to *maydān* 'a square' (originally meant 'a place for horse racing') and *mihrajān* 'a festival' (originally meant 'day of thanksgiving', when people showed *mehr* 'love' to each other). Alongside with Persian, Greek vocabulary was borrowed into Arabic from numerous Greek tractates (*qanūn*

'law', *qirtās* 'paper') and religious words, as Byzantium played a central role in Eastern Orthodoxy (*ayqūna-a* 'icon') (Fraenkel 1886 in Versteegh; Belkin 101, 102; Shahīd 6,7).

As for the character of the borrowings during the time of the early Islamic expansions of the Abbasside Empire period, they were mostly borrowed in their original form with only slight adaptations to Arabic morphology (Versteegh 62). This new vocabulary immediately drew the special attention of medieval grammarians (Hafīz 26) and became the subject of numerous linguistic studies and debates.

With time, most loanwords went through the full process of assimilation (al-Hafāji, 1365 h: 4) and became fully arabicized. It was possible to apply the

¹ Here we mean by this term a process of incorporating foreign words into language during which loanwords usually undergo phonological, morphological and orthographical modifications, so as to be congruent with the Arabic philological and morphological paradigms (al-Qinai 1,2) and follow the grammatical rules of the receiving language.

criteria of formal Arabic grammar to almost all of them: they gained an inflectional ending, could be used with and without an article, formed dual and plural forms, indicated masculine or feminine gender, could produce derivations and be a part of *al-'Idafa-a* construction (al-Maghribī 48).

The intensive assimilation of numerous borrowed vocabulary led to its complete assimilation into the Arabic language (Belkin 99) in contrast with the later borrowings, about which we shall speak further in this study.

Linguists of that period paid special attention to the patterns of new borrowings and the morphological forms that were applied to borrowings. As a result, some foreign words were changed in order to match their morphological structure to ones that existed in Arabic. For example, the pattern of such words as *hātam*, *qālam*, *tāba'* and others was perceived as being incorrect in comparison with the pattern of *fail*, so these terms were converted respectively into *hātim*, *qālib*, and *tabi*. In other cases, the borrowed lexical structures were identified not with the singular, but the plural form. The borrowed word *firdaws* 'paradise', for example, was formed from *fārādīs*, which ultimately comes from the Greek *parádeisos* (al-Maghribī, Mazhar in Belkin 106).

The conversion of Baghdad into a center of academic studies during the heyday of the Islamic Caliphate made Arabic a mediator language of the sciences and promoted the coining of new terminology. Some of Baghdad's enthusiastic scholars, like Hunayn Ibn 'Ishāq (d. 873), a physician and a scientist, created Arabic neologisms through the application of Greek roots for medical vocabulary, like terms for the parts of the eye (*qarniyya-a* 'cornea' from *keratoeidēs*, and *shabakiyya-a* 'retina' from *amphiblēstroeidēs*). He also used Arabic roots and the *fu'āl* pattern to coin terms for diseases: *duwār* 'dizziness', *tuhāl* 'infection of the spleen', and even *humār* 'hangover' (Versteegh 62).

Other noticeable morphological changes in foreign vocabulary acquisition that took place at that time included cutting off the initial syllables *al-*, *an-*, *ar-* and similar prefixes, which were wrongly perceived as the definite article *al-*. For example, the Arabic *mās* 'diamond' comes from the Greek *adamas*, the Arabic '*anjar* 'anchor' originated from Persian *lānjār* and the Arabic '*askar* 'army' is taken from Persian *lāškār*.

Some of these borrowings were considered in traditional Arabic linguistics to be symbols of non-Islamic beliefs, and that is why they got an additional semantic extension in light of later Islamic

study: today *minbār* means 'tribune of a preacher in a mosque', *miShaf* 'Quranic scroll' and *munāfiq* 'hypocrite' (Belkin 102, 106).

Summing up the arabicization of that period, we claim that, despite the resistance of some language purists to new borrowings into Arabic, it was a very productive process (Versteegh 179-180).

The Third Period: The Ottoman Yoke (Fifteenth-Eighteenth Centuries)

During the long-term era of Turkish-Ottoman political and economic domination over the territory of the Arabic-speaking countries, the influence of Turkish on Arabic significantly increased.

Numerous Turkish words that were borrowed into Arabic can be divided into two large groups. The first one is administrative and military terminology (names of administrative units, official institutions, military units, units and formations, police, civil and military ranks, legal terminology, etc.): 'imdā' 'signature', *rasm* 'tax', *ma'ayasha-a* 'pension', *dā'ira-a* 'institution', *maṣlaha-a* 'department' (Nakhla-a 274 in Belkin 109).

Another group of words is relatively small, but extremely diverse: *'araba-a* 'vehicle', *būghāz* 'harbor strait', *bayraq* 'flag', *damgha-a*, or *tamgha-a* 'stamp', *wujāq* 'focus', *qazān* 'pot', *sujuq* 'sausage', *kabāb* 'burger', *badrūm* 'basement', *kūbrī* 'bridge', *kurbāj* 'whip', *shamūla-a* 'nuts', *burgī* 'screw' (Belkin 109).

Borrowings from European languages also took place during the Ottoman period, but there were many fewer of these compared to Turkish borrowings.

As for the morphological nature of borrowings during that period, here we would like to distinguish the two compound constructions noted by Belkin (109):

(1) the addition of an Arabic *nisba-a* suffix -iyy which was used instead of Turkish suffix -ci² to a Turkish base or one that was borrowed from any other language, including Arabic: *'arabajiyy* 'cabby', *'ataşjiyy* 'fireman', *qahwajiyy* 'coffee maker', *sufrajiyy* 'servant', *mahzanjiyy* 'storekeeper', *nawbatjiyy* 'someone who is on duty';

(2) a construction that consisted of an Arabic stem and a foreign suffix, like the Turkish -lik: *haramlik* 'zenana', *salāmik* 'living room', or the Persian one -dar: *hukmdār* 'police', *silāhdār* 'squire'. There are many loanwords with this morpheme, but they have barely penetrated the MSA, as it has its equivalent Arabic suffix -iyy and some patterns for expressing the same idea.

The Fourth Period: the Arabic Renaissance and European Colonialism (Nineteenth Century - Approximately the 1960s)

The state of the Arabic language by the middle of the nineteenth century brought certain individuals into a genuine state of despair. The Ottoman yoke that had lasted for centuries had brought it into a period of stagnation. The overwhelming majority of the ruling aristocracy and most of the leading poets were of Turkish, Kurdish and Albanian origins. Naturally, they continued to speak their native languages and ignored Arabic.

² This suffix designates persons according to their occupation, or a job, or belonging to some social category.

From another side, the rapid growth of the Arab national consciousness in opposition to Western influence led to the founding of the *al-nahda-a* 'Renaissance' movement. Its aim was to develop

new Arab philosophical, political, social and moral standards that were intended to become the main tool in the Arab struggle against feudal ideology and cultural backwardness and to return the former glory and power to the Arabs.

The past victories included the previous triumph and prestige of the Arabic language, and its revival became an integral part of the Arabic Renaissance. The new Arab men considered mass enlightenment to be the historical need of that time, paid special attention to the dormant resources of their language for both the linguistic and non-linguistic needs of modernization, and tried to revive it and save it from stagnation (Suleiman 102, 103).

The new Arab intellectuals carried out a lot of work to create a new language, style and literary forms, especially in journalism. The leading Renaissance figures from Syria Butrus al-Bustānī (1819-83) and Fāris al-Shidyāq (1804-87) gave an impulse to the modernization of the Arabic lexicon through the incorporation of new ideas and concepts.

In Egypt, the early nationalistic reforms of Muhammad Ali in the first half of the nineteenth century included promoting Arabic as a tool for modernization and awakening the country's mind to the establishment of the School of Languages.

‘Ahmad Lutfi al-Seyyid, an anti-colonialist and the first director of Cairo University, believed that the Egyptian nation could preserve its language and adapt it to its own needs through the coining of numerous scientific terms and opposed such language modernizers. His opponents thought that Arabic was of limited use in the sciences, and that is why borrowings from European languages would act as a bridge to European education and culture, make learning these languages easier, and replace artificial stagnant artistry with modern rhetoric.

Moreover, Lūīs 'Awad, an Egyptian intellectual and writer, thought that the origin of the Arabs was outside of Arabia and that such an origin explained the similarity between Arabic and the Semitic languages just by the natural outcome of language contacts. He claimed that Arabic was a hybrid of its own and outside languages, as it had been gradually formed under different influences (Suleiman 172-201)

About half a century after these fiery debates Arabic language academies were founded in Cairo and in Damascus, and later on in Baghdad and Amman alongside with The Permanent Bureau of Coordination in Rabat. Their major goal was and still is ensuring the compatibility and the integrity of the Arabic language, adapting it to the needs of modern society and preserving it in the face of foreign and dialectical influence. The strict policy worked out by them only allowed borrowings in scientific and technical terminology and the replacement of nineteenth-century political terms, which was allowed to represent the foreign share of Arabic vocabulary (Versteegh 178, 180) for a while.

Despite resistance to Western influence and the Arabic Renaissance, a huge number of foreign borrowings characterizes the Arabic language of the nineteenth and twentieth centuries. This happened as the result of the development of Arabic media, book printing, and the exchange of all kinds of ideas and achievements between the European and Arab worlds.

Translations, which had been unorganized at first, were increasingly made to be uniform through the efforts of Arabic language academies. But if there was some cooperation and mutual efforts in coining professional terminology for medicine, physical science, or technical areas (Versteegh 179), the translation of numerous borrowings related to other fields was still spontaneous and chaotic. Quite often, these words came into Arabic in their foreign language forms without the addition of Arabic derivational prefixes and suffixes unless its users had specific goals, such as stylistic ones.

Another specific feature of that period is the decreasing number of cases of complete morphological adaption. For example, the word *talfaza-a* ‘television’ (as an abstract noun) and the

assimilated *tilfāz* 'TV set' were used in parallel with the non-assimilated, but widely used, *tilmzyōn* (Belkin 113).

The easiest category that was adapted without difficulty was foreign vocabulary that coincidentally matched Arabic morphological or phonological rules. During the described period, such vocabulary required minimal transformation, including such words as *cable* and *cadre*, which could be converted into Arabic *kābil* and *kādir*. The plural forms of the last term could be easily created according to the patterns of the Arabic broken plural: *kawādir* (Belkin 111-114; Versteegh 180).

During that, time arabicization was frequently used to expand the old meanings of the same roots that still represented the most common model for adapting foreign vocabulary. Versteegh (2002), Belkin (1975) and El-Mouloudi (1987) provide a list of the most common ways that were used to morphologically adapt foreign words. However, the grammatical and derivational systems of Arabic were unsuitable for the assimilation of most words, especially polysyllabic ones.

One of the solutions to this situation was the way of coining terms to add to the rapidly growing terminology through metaphor or abstractions. For the word *tilijūn* (from the Greek *telē* 'distant' and *phone* 'sound') a lot of the old words, like *nadiyy*, 'irīz', *missarah*, *hātif*, that have the common meaning of 'a voice from afar' were sequentially tried, and only the last one found some limited application.

Other types of metaphor were revived through use of the old word *barq* 'lightning', which was given a new meaning, so its derivation *barqiya-a* is used to mean 'telegram' and the term *band* 'mail', which originally

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meant an old way of sending messages through animals (Bakalla 12).

However, the way of translating foreign borrowings through the revival of old Arabic vocabulary and the expansion of its semantic meanings was also limited in its acceptance. Since it was too archaic, the speakers of Arabic did not know much about it, and such attempts quite often failed.

One of the challenges of formation of new vocabulary was compounding root, which cannot be done in Arabic. Though the Academy of Cairo approved blending as a vocabulary building method, its application was limited to scientific terminology that had to be clear and understandable without an etymological analysis. Successful attempts were made not only through combining two roots, like in *dawrahyā iyya-a* 'biochemical cycle' (~#60; *dawra-a* 'cycle' + *ihāiyya-a* 'biological') (El-Mouloudi 281), *fahmā 'iyyāt* 'carbohydrates' (~#60; *fahm* 'carbon' + *mā* 'water') (Versteegh 182), but even in uniting three roots (*dabjarnahr*, "streamflow control" which consisted of three terms (*dabt* 'control', *jarayān* 'flow' and *nahr* 'river') (El-Mouloudi 281).

At the same time, a whole range of newly coined words, like *qatjara-a* (~#60; *qat* 'cutting' + *khanjara-a* 'throat') and *arbarijl* 'quadruped' (~#60; *arba* 'four' + *rijl* 'foot') were rejected by the Academy as contrary to 'the spirit of Arabic language' (Versteegh 182) and in violation of the norms of good taste governing the coining of new vocabulary (El-Mouloudi 291).

Another challenge in coining the new vocabulary in accordance with the compound model was the need to find an equivalent to foreign nouns and adjectives that consisted of two bases, which were primarily based on Greco-Latin prefixes, including 'anti-', 'extra-', 'non-', or roots, like 'auto-', 'micro-'. The Arabic derivational morphological system does not use prefixes for the same purpose. A solution was found in using several borrowings, such as the negations *la-* and *ghayr-* to replace the Greek privative prefix *a-*: *la-nihaāyy* 'initiate', *la-adriyya-a* 'agnosticism', *ghayr-sharī* 'a-a' 'illegitimate'. Later, several other prepositions, like *shibh-* 'almost as' (*shibh-jazīra-a* 'almost as an island' = 'peninsula'), were deployed for similar word constructions (Versteegh 182).

The reinstatement of Turkish elements in Arabic, which had started during the Renaissance, continued during the colonial and post-colonial periods. The replacement of the common Turkish prefix *baş-*, which had been used for marking the title of a Turkish director such as in the word *başmuhandis* 'chief engineer', serves a good example of this change. It was translated into its Arabic equivalent, and gradually the Arabic genitive construction *kabīr al-muhandisīn* replaced the Turkish-Arabic one (Belkin 109).

As for the donor languages that influenced Arabic the most during the Renaissance and the periods of colonialism, the most productive was French (70.4%) (Newman), which was widely used at that time as the lingua franca of international communication: *burjūāziya-a* 'bourgeois', *barlamān* 'parliament', *sīnamā* 'cinema', *fīlm* 'movie', *tilīfūn* 'phone', *rādiū* 'radio', *tilīfīzūn* 'television', *bākālūrīā* 'Bachelor's degree', *duktūrā-a* 'doctoral degree', *diblūm* 'diploma', *lisāns* 'license', *mājīstīr* 'master', *munāwara-a* 'maneuver' *sikritūr* 'secretary', *diktatūr* 'dictator', *garsōn* 'garçon, a boy', *rūj* 'lipstick' (Belkin 110-111).

At this stage, Arabic was also noticeably enriched by Italian vocabulary (21.4%) (Newman), mostly related to commerce and shipping: *bāla-a* 'bundle', *basbūr* 'passport', *bank* 'bank', *burSa-a* 'market', *būṣṣa-a* 'compass', *fātūra-a* 'account', *qubṭān* 'master', *qurṣān* 'pirate', or just randomly following into different semantic categories: *inḥlūwahnzā* 'flu', *burnayta-a* 'beret', *bisilla-a* 'peas', *ṣālṣa-a* 'sauce' (Belkin 110).

There were quite a few other borrowings from other languages during this period, such as *lansh* 'launch' and *warsha-a* 'workshop' from English. Some terms related to global political events and ideas, like the Bolshevik revolution in Russia and socialism, were borrowed into Arabic directly with only slight phonetic adaptation or through other languages, as it was hard to translate them with one term: *sūfīt* 'Soviet (noun and adj.)', *kulhūz* 'collective farm', *sūfhūz* 'state farm', *kūlāk* 'kulak'. Though in most cases these words were followed by an explanatory comment, like *al-kulhūz* 'aw al-mazra ' al-jamā iyya-a 'kolkhoz, or a collective farm' (Belkin 111).

The Fifth Period: The Technological Era (1970s - present)

Modern globalization is aggressively erasing the cultural boundaries between the Arab world and other countries, making borrowings and assimilations natural and ordinary phenomena. The new rhythm of life, demographic changes, numerous inventions, technologies, and means of communications require a new language. During approximately the last forty years, the number of borrowings has tremendously increased, and they continue to grow fast.

Ngom in his research about modern borrowings into Senegal noticed that loan vocabulary covers specific language groups and cultural contexts. The same can be said about Arabic, though the domains where borrowed words are used are changed during the last fifty years.

Since the 1980s, the role of English has continued to grow. It has become a lingua franca leaving all other languages from which Arabic used to borrow its vocabulary far behind. The reason for the triumph of the English language is simple. The overwhelming majority of technological innovations and inventions come from the U.S.A. and Western Europe. This process is followed by semantic motivation (denotation), where the "export of technology is accompanied by the export of names for this technology" (Atawneh 29, 30), such as fax, satellite dishes, pagers, e-mail, and cell phones.

This way of adopting Anglicisms into foreign languages today is still the most common one and is predicted to continue to expand (Sin'kova 17).

One positive aspect of such borrowings is the use of the original term in its clear associative array for native speakers. In this case, a borrowing is not associated with regular vocabulary, and its function in language is very narrow and specific. Moreover, many linguists think that if a foreign term is not clear to Arabic speakers, it is not associated with any native vocabulary, and thus it corrupts the Arabic language. It also might introduce confusion, as during the initial stages of borrowings the original meaning of a new term might change. For example, the English noun 'Internet', which originally meant 'global computer net', is used in the Tunisian press as a verb with the meaning 'to advertise by email' (Sin'kova 17). Despite of protests of conservative linguists all over the Arab world, English is becoming more popular with each passing year. It is associated with progress, freedom and education, fashionable lifestyles and modern sports. About 65 percent of Arab shop owners use only English names for their store as well as English shelf labels and signage. When answering the question about the reason for their preference for English over Arabic, they claimed the prestige, the appeal and popularity of such names in the eyes of customers who were looking for quality, the international status of the English language, the better quality of goods imported from Europe, the higher status of English and the preference for English over Arabic when dealing with women's goods. Such Arab store names as "Deluxe Shoes," "King Star Shoes," "Pretty Woman," "Happy Bunny," "Five Cats," illustrate this common attitude (Atawneh 30, 31). Merchandise with labels in English is more popular compared to labels in Arabic, as these are Anglicisms that make these goods more attractive in the eyes of customers. Moreover, these tags make buyers believe in the product's superior quality and enhance the sense of superiority and belonging to the Western European and American world.

Using foreign vocabulary also allows some Arabs to associate themselves with the middle class and make themselves look more competent (Khrisat, Mohamad 136). One might easily notice this code-mixing when watching Arabic TV programs, especially interviews about fashions, modern art and lifestyles, the beauty industry, etc. Arabic speakers are known to use such English loans as *twālīt* 'toilet', *andarwīr* 'underwear' and *būyfrīnd* 'boyfriend' euphemistically (al-Khatib and Farghal, in Hafiz 58).

Many borrowed terms only undergo partial arabicization³ (Ibrahim). This happens mostly because the influx of technical terminology with which Arabic cannot cope has led to the maintaining of the term's original pronunciation with little phonological adaptation in Arabic (Khatib and Farghal in Hafiz 35). Meanwhile, non-technical terms usually gradually undergo extensive phonological naturalization, such as in the case of *barlamān* 'parliament'. This fact supports our claim made above that technical borrowings represent the largest share of such borrowings in MSA today.

The Arabic language academies and numerous enthusiasts are constantly and tirelessly coining new borrowings into Arabic based on different models. A statistical report submitted by the Cairo Academy in 1997 claims that the total number of new terms created through borrowing is 135,076 in 38 fields, four of which (biology, medicine, physics and petrol) account for over 10,000 loanwords (al-Qahtani 30, 31 in Hafiz).

At the same time, Arabic neologisms for terms in precise sciences, technology, especially nano-technology, cybernetics, nuclear physics, computing technology, aerospace technologies and other areas have turned out to be the most successful, and all the traditional ways of coining new vocabulary mentioned in the beginning of our study still successfully solve this issue: (1) arabicization: *mūdim* 'modem'; (2) derivation: *tābi* '-a 'printer' produced from the Arabic root [*tā* - *bā* - 'ayn] 'to type' through the pattern of an Arabic active participle; (3) semantic expansion: *lawha-a*, the old meaning of which is 'painting', obtained the new one, 'keyboard', and *al-atād*, which still means 'equipment', has obtained a new meaning of 'hardware'; (4) compounding through *al-idāfa-a* construction: *tarkīb nizām tasghīl al-aqrāṣ* 'disk operating system'; (5) compounding through adjectival structure constructions (na't): *shāsha-a muṣat taha-a rafī'a* 'thin flat screen' (Hafiz 77, 79, 80, 87, 172; Al-Kharabsheh 148-149 in Hafiz 89).

According to Hafiz's statistics from the *Dictionary of Computers*, arabicization accounts for 58% of its main entries (118) and 74% of Network Set Magazine (122).

Conclusion

The new borrowings that came into Arabic during the past usually acquired all or most signs of word assimilation (orthographical, phonetic, morphological and grammatical). Most of the new borrowings, especially in the spheres of new technologies and computer science, still keep their non-Arabic base and might eventually match, wholly, or partly, the Arabic formal signs of word assimilation because of the difficulty of finding a precise Arabic word-formative model into which they can fit, and/or combining Arabic roots to create a calque.

The number of foreign borrowings has grown tremendously in recent times because of globalization and the propagation of American and Western European lifestyles, the choice of Arabic specialists to study abroad, and just because it is the easiest way to adapt

³ It is “mostly phonological in nature” (C.Paradis and D.LaChartité 131), where a term is taken from a donor language as it is, with slight phonetic changes, like bawr stīring ‘power steering’ (Ibrahim).

foreign words. The motivations behind borrowings include the introduction of new technologies to the Arabic-speaking world, contacts between different cultures, beauty, harmony, prestige, ideology, and world globalization. In addition to the actual social context, borrowings are transmitted via religious and literary texts (Khrisat 136).

At the same time, Arabic language academies have made efforts to preserve the language from corruption and to prevent the number of borrowings from becoming excessive. Together with some other government institutions and national agencies they have not yet stopped their attempts (though they have not been that successful) of working out a special policy in coining new terminology through the use of Arabic roots and patterns. They unite their efforts in carrying out Arabic language planning aimed at coordinating and coining new terminology and standards. Given that the phonetic system and syntactic arrangements undergo little change and are not easily transferable from one language to another, the lexicon has a high degree of flexibility and is in constant flux. Words remain “the basic unit of a language” (Bakkala 71). This fact makes vocabulary an object of special attention and a good indicator of the changes that a language has undergone as a result of political, social and cultural changes.

However, it is necessary to remember that it is first and foremost the educated social layer, and especially all those who use the literary language, such as writers and journalists, who will play the decisive role in borrowing or rejecting foreign words and accepting their arabicization (Belkin 117). Many writers, journalists, translators and scholars consider arabicization to be a useful tool in the development of MSA. They see Arabic as an open and real life system, which must meet today's language needs, and they have historically been comfortable with coining terminology that has not always met the phonological and morphological norms of the Arabic language (El-Mouloudi 2, 4).

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